

Main results

Positive Summation Kernels

A family of functions $(K_n)_{n \geq 1}$ on $\mathbb{R}$ (or on $\mathbb{T}$, the circle) is called a *positive summation kernel* if the following hold:

- (i) $K_n(x) \geq 0$ for all $x \in \mathbb{R}$ and each n ;
 - (ii) $\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} K_n(x) dx = 1$ for all n ;
 - (iii) for every $\delta > 0$,
- $$\int_{|x| \geq \delta} K_n(x) dx \longrightarrow 0 \quad \text{as } n \rightarrow \infty.$$

Equivalently, (K_n) is an *approximate identity*: the mass of K_n concentrates near $x = 0$ as $n \rightarrow \infty$. For such kernels, the convolution $(f * K_n)(x) = \int f(x - t)K_n(t) dt$ satisfies

$$(f * K_n)(x) \rightarrow f(x)$$

for all x where f is continuous.

Riemann-Lebesgue Lemma

Theorem 2.2 (Riemann–Lebesgue lemma) Let f be absolutely integrable in the Riemann sense on a finite or infinite interval I . Then

$$\lim_{\lambda \rightarrow \infty} \int_I f(u) \sin(\lambda u) du = 0.$$

(A corresponding result holds for $\cos(\lambda u)$ or $e^{i\lambda u}$.)

Corollary for Fourier Coefficients

Corollary. Let $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$ (i.e., $\int_{-\pi}^{\pi} |f(x)| dx < \infty$). Its complex Fourier coefficients are:

$$\hat{f}(n) = c_n = \frac{1}{2\pi} \int_{-\pi}^{\pi} f(x) e^{-inx} dx, \quad n \in \mathbb{Z}.$$

The Fourier coefficients of any integrable function vanish at infinity:

$$\hat{f}(n) \longrightarrow 0 \quad \text{as } |n| \rightarrow \infty.$$

Proof Sketch of Corollary: The Fourier coefficient $\hat{f}(n)$ can be expressed as:

$$\hat{f}(n) = \frac{1}{2\pi} \left(\int_{-\pi}^{\pi} f(x) \cos(nx) dx + i \int_{-\pi}^{\pi} f(x) \sin(-nx) dx \right)$$

Since $\cos(nx)$ and $\sin(nx)$ are bounded functions, the absolute integrability of f is preserved when multiplied by these functions. As $|n| \rightarrow \infty$, both the real and imaginary parts of the integral tend to zero by applying the Riemann–Lebesgue lemma (and its cosine variant) with $\lambda = n$. Therefore, $\hat{f}(n) \rightarrow 0$ as $|n| \rightarrow \infty$.

The Laplace Transform

Let $H(t)$ be the Heaviside step function, $H(t) = 0$ for $t < 0$ and $H(t) = 1$ for $t \geq 0$. We will always work with *causal* functions, i.e. we take f to be defined as

$$f(t) := f(t) H(t),$$

so that $f(t) = 0$ for all $t < 0$.

For a complex parameter s with $\Re s$ large enough so that the integral converges (the *region of convergence*), the *Laplace transform* of f is

$$\mathcal{L}\{f\}(s) = \int_0^{\infty} f(t) e^{-st} dt.$$

We also write $\tilde{f}(s)$ or $F(s)$ for $\mathcal{L}\{f\}(s)$.

Functions of Exponential Order

Let $k > 0$. A function $f : [0, \infty) \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ is said to be of *exponential order* k if:

- (i) f is continuous on every finite subinterval of $[0, \infty)$, except possibly for finitely many jump discontinuities;
- (ii) there exists a constant $M > 0$ such that

$$|f(t)| \leq M e^{kt}, \quad t \geq 0.$$

The class of all such functions is denoted by $\mathcal{E}_k$. If $f \in \mathcal{E}_k$ for some k , we say that f is of *exponential type* and write $f \in \mathcal{E} = \bigcup_{k>0} \mathcal{E}_k$.

Theorem. If $f \in \mathcal{E}_k$, then the Laplace transform

$$\tilde{f}(s) = \int_0^{\infty} f(t) e^{-st} dt$$

exists for all $s > k$.

Common Laplace Transforms

(Here $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$, $n \in \mathbb{N}$, and the stated condition on s ensures convergence.)

Function $f(t)$	$\mathcal{L}\{f\}(s)$	Condition on s
1	$\frac{1}{s}$	$\Re s > 0$
t^n	$\frac{n!}{s^{n+1}}$	$\Re s > 0$
e^{at}	$\frac{1}{s-a}$	$\Re s > a$
$\sin(bt)$	$\frac{b}{s^2 + b^2}$	$\Re s > 0$
$\cos(bt)$	$\frac{s}{s^2 + b^2}$	$\Re s > 0$
$\sinh(bt)$	$\frac{b}{s^2 - b^2}$	$\Re s > b $
$\cosh(bt)$	$\frac{s}{s^2 - b^2}$	$\Re s > b $
$f(t-a)H(t-a)$	$e^{-as}F(s)$	$a > 0$ (second shifting)
$e^{at}f(t)$	$F(s-a)$	$\Re s > a + \sigma_0$, if F converges for $\Re s > \sigma_0$

Operational Rules for the Laplace Transform

Let $\mathcal{L}\{f(t)\}(s) = \tilde{f}(s)$, and assume all transforms exist for sufficiently large $\Re s$.

(i) **Linearity:**

$$\mathcal{L}\{\alpha f(t) + \beta g(t)\}(s) = \alpha \tilde{f}(s) + \beta \tilde{g}(s), \quad \alpha, \beta \in \mathbb{C}.$$

(ii) **Exponential (Damping) Rule:**

$$\mathcal{L}\{e^{at}f(t)\}(s) = \tilde{f}(s-a).$$

(iii) **Time Shift (Delay) Rule:** If $f(t) = 0$ for $t < 0$ and $a > 0$, then

$$\mathcal{L}\{f(t-a)\}(s) = e^{-as} \tilde{f}(s).$$

(iv) **Scaling Rule:** For $a > 0$,

$$\mathcal{L}\{f(at)\}(s) = \frac{1}{a} \tilde{f}\left(\frac{s}{a}\right).$$

(v) **Multiplication by t (and by t^n):**

$$\mathcal{L}\{t f(t)\}(s) = -\frac{d}{ds} \tilde{f}(s), \quad \mathcal{L}\{t^n f(t)\}(s) = (-1)^n \frac{d^n}{ds^n} \tilde{f}(s) \quad (n \in \mathbb{N}).$$

(vi) **Derivatives in t :**

$$\mathcal{L}\{f'(t)\}(s) = s\tilde{f}(s) - f(0^+), \quad \mathcal{L}\{f''(t)\}(s) = s^2\tilde{f}(s) - sf(0^+) - f'(0^+),$$

and in general

$$\mathcal{L}\{f^{(n)}(t)\}(s) = s^n\tilde{f}(s) - \sum_{k=0}^{n-1} s^{n-1-k} f^{(k)}(0^+).$$

(vii) **Integral in t :**

$$\mathcal{L}\left\{\int_0^t f(u) du\right\}(s) = \frac{\tilde{f}(s)}{s}.$$

Fourier Series Coefficients

The representation of a 2π -periodic function f as a Fourier series depends on whether the complex exponential basis or the real trigonometric basis is used.

1. Complex Fourier Series

For a function $f \in L^1(\mathbb{T})$, the series representation is:

$$f(x) \sim \sum_{n \in \mathbb{Z}} c_n e^{inx}$$

The complex Fourier coefficients $c_n = \hat{f}(n)$ are computed as:

$$c_n = \hat{f}(n) = \frac{1}{2\pi} \int_{-\pi}^{\pi} f(x) e^{-inx} dx, \quad n \in \mathbb{Z}.$$

2. Real Fourier Series (Trigonometric)

For a real-valued function f , the series representation is:

$$f(x) \sim a_0 + \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} (a_n \cos(nx) + b_n \sin(nx))$$

The real Fourier coefficients are computed as:

- a_0 (Constant component):

$$a_0 = \frac{1}{2\pi} \int_{-\pi}^{\pi} f(x) dx$$

- a_n (Cosine coefficients, $n \geq 1$):

$$a_n = \frac{1}{\pi} \int_{-\pi}^{\pi} f(x) \cos(nx) dx, \quad n \in \mathbb{N}$$

- b_n (Sine coefficients, $n \geq 1$):

$$b_n = \frac{1}{\pi} \int_{-\pi}^{\pi} f(x) \sin(nx) dx, \quad n \in \mathbb{N}$$

Note: The relationship between the coefficients is $c_0 = a_0$, and for $n \geq 1$, $c_n = \frac{1}{2}(a_n - ib_n)$ and $c_{-n} = \frac{1}{2}(a_n + ib_n)$.

Plancherel's Theorem (Parseval's Identity for Fourier Transforms)

Plancherel's Theorem relates the L^2 norm of a function in the time domain $L^2(\mathbb{R})$ to the L^2 norm of its Fourier Transform in the frequency domain $L^2(\mathbb{R})$. This identity is essential for evaluating integrals using Fourier transforms.

1. Squared L^2 -Norm

For a square-integrable function $f \in L^2(\mathbb{R})$, the L^2 -norm is preserved under the Fourier Transform:

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} |f(t)|^2 dt = \frac{1}{2\pi} \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} |\hat{f}(\xi)|^2 d\xi$$

Note: The factor $\frac{1}{2\pi}$ depends on the convention used for the Fourier Transform.

2. Polarized Plancherel Formula

For $f, g \in L^2(\mathbb{R})$, the inner product is preserved:

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} f(t) \overline{g(t)} dt = \frac{1}{2\pi} \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \hat{f}(\xi) \overline{\hat{g}(\xi)} d\xi$$

The integrals in Problem 6(b) often rely on applying these formulas, usually by identifying the integrand with either the square of a transform $|\hat{f}(\xi)|^2$ or a product of transforms $\hat{f}(\xi) \overline{\hat{g}(\xi)}$.